

PyCC.id: A package for hypothesis-driven equation discovery with structural identifiability

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Summary

Data-driven equation discovery is fundamentally an inverse problem that seeks to infer the governing differential equations of a system directly from time-series measurements. A known issue is the ill-conditioned nature of the inverse problem, which frequently produces multiple mathematical models that fit the data similarly well. One path to address this issue is by incorporating known hypotheses and constraints into the training phase beforehand. While this approach effectively reduces the search space, it still results in multiple candidate models, forcing practitioners to rely on post-hoc manual filtering based on their own domain expertise. A recent approach incorporates structural ‘skeletons’ inspired by characteristic curves (CCs), defining a hypothesis-driven methodology. In this methodology, practitioners define a skeleton, which is associated with a family of ordinary differential equations (ODEs), and then add their hypotheses and priors based on their domain knowledge to refine the obtained model iteratively. An important advantage of this approach is that some skeletons have demonstrable structural identifiability properties, which are useful for checking whether the skeleton is correct or should be discarded. Furthermore, this formalism enables the use of multiple equation discovery paradigms due to its modularity (such as neural networks, symbolic regression, and sparse regression). In this work, we present the Python library PyCC, which condenses these efforts into a flexible tool that allows researchers and engineers to seamlessly define their skeletons and hypotheses to discover ODEs from time-dependent data.

Statement of Need

Data-driven equation discovery is fundamentally an inverse problem that seeks to infer the governing differential equations of a system from time-series measurements. Historically, this topic is rooted in the field of system identification within control theory. However, modern equation discovery methods have introduced novel developments that have enabled applications across a wide range of disciplines in science, medicine, and engineering. During the last two decades, this interdisciplinary effort has contributed significantly to the emerging field of scientific machine learning ([Dietrich & Schilders, 2025](#)).

Despite these advances, the inverse problem remains typically ill-conditioned ([Schönlieb & Shumaylov, 2025](#)), as many different mathematical expressions can fit a finite dataset with similar accuracy. Consequently, the algorithms often provide a vast landscape of candidate models. Although these models are valid in terms of data fitting, they often vary significantly in their structural form, leading to physically inconsistent representations. Therefore, practitioners must often rely on post-hoc analysis to manually discard models that do not align with the physics based on their domain expertise. This leaves the final selection of a model somewhat arbitrary.

To address this difficulty, an emerging method incorporates the concepts of structural ‘skeletons’

and CCs (F. J. Gonzalez, 2024; Gonzalez, 2023, 2026; Gonzalez & Lara, 2025). An structural skeleton corresponds to a given classification of families of ODEs. The choice of the structural skeleton directly affects identifiability: while certain skeletons possess structural identifiability, others can result in non-identifiable or ambiguous representations. When a skeleton is shown to be theoretically identifiable in phase space (Gonzalez, 2026), it provides a formal framework to determine whether a proposed equation is consistent with the data or should be reformulated.

This work introduces PyCC.id (also referred to as PyCC), an open-source library that implements this framework through a hypothesis-driven methodology. This hypothesis-driven workflow requires the practitioner to propose a specific structural skeleton based on physical intuition or domain knowledge. PyCC then allows the user to integrate prior information (such as explicit physical symmetries and constraints) directly into the functions defined within these skeletons. By providing a clear pathway to validate or eliminate these hypothesized structures at the algorithmic level, the library contributes to addressing the ill-conditioned nature of the inverse problem. It enables practitioners to easily define skeletons and additional hypotheses that sufficiently reduce the search space to mitigate structural ambiguity, facilitating the discovery of interpretable and physically consistent governing equations.

Structural skeletons

The PyCC library operates by enforcing a structural skeleton, which serves as a template to define a family of admissible physical models. Unlike purely data-driven ‘black-box’ methods, this hypothesis-driven approach constrains the model to a physically motivated structure, ensuring that the identified components are structurally identifiable and grounded in the underlying physics.

The library decomposes global dynamics into these skeletons composed of univariate one-dimensional (1D) functions. The following examples are skeletons with structural identifiability properties (Gonzalez, 2026)

When reconstructing governing equations from empirical observations, practitioners face the ill-posed nature of the inverse problem: multiple distinct mathematical models can often yield similar prediction errors, making model selection ambiguous and failing to guarantee a unique representation of the true underlying mechanisms. This identifiability problem is particularly relevant in purely data-driven methods, where the lack of constraints allows algorithms to find spurious models that properly fit the data but fail to capture the actual physics. Existing approaches face significant limitations in addressing this challenge:

Opaque predictive models: Methods like Neural ODEs (Chen et al., 2018) treat the entire vector field $\mathbf{F}$ as a monolithic NN. Multiple distinct internal representations can produce similar predictions, leading to models that may be flexible and precise but fail to be consistent with the underlying physics (Wu, 2025). This lack of uniqueness makes physical interpretation difficult or impossible.

Interpretable sparse and symbolic regression methods: Approaches based on sparse regression (e.g., SINDy (Brunton et al., 2016)) and symbolic regression (e.g., PySR (Cranmer, 2023)) aim to find analytical equations from data. However, these methods often face similar identifiability challenges; depending on the candidate library or set of operations, fundamentally different system structures may yield nearly identical error values. This leads to model non-uniqueness, where multiple non-equivalent equations appear equally valid.

Structured Discovery with Prior Knowledge

One way to address these identifiability issues is by incorporating physical prior knowledge about the system. PyCC package addresses this by using the formalism of CCs, which enables practitioners to:

- 89 1. **A first-order family:** With applications in overdamped systems such as mechanical
 90 nonlinear damping, viscoelastic materials, nonlinear RL series and RC parallel circuits (F.
 91 J. Gonzalez, 2024; Gonzalez, 2023).

$$F_{ext}(t) = f_1(x) + f_2(x)\dot{x} \quad (1)$$

- 92 2. **A second-order family with velocity-dependent friction:** The standard model for
 93 mechanical oscillators with velocity-dependent friction, also known as a generalized
 94 Rayleigh-type nonlinear oscillation with velocity-dependent friction and external forcing
 95 (Gonzalez, 2026; Gonzalez & Lara, 2025).

$$F_{ext}(t) = \ddot{x} + f_1(\dot{x}) + f_2(x) \quad (2)$$

- 96 3. **A second-order family with position-dependent friction:** Designed for systems where
 97 damping varies with position, also known as a Liénard equation with external forcing
 98 (Gonzalez & Lara, 2025).

$$F_{ext}(t) = \ddot{x} + f_1(x)\dot{x} + f_2(x) \quad (3)$$

- 99 4. **A coupled multi-degree-of-freedom (MDOF) family:** Modeling the interactions for a
 100 coupled system (Gonzalez, 2026; Nayfeh & Pai, 2004).

$$F_{ext,1}(t) = \ddot{x}_1 + f_1(\dot{x}_1) + f_2(x_1 - x_2)$$

$$F_{ext,2}(t) = \ddot{x}_2 + f_3(\dot{x}_2) + f_4(x_2 - x_1)$$

101 The library enables the user to seamlessly define their own proposed skeletons while also
 102 integrating specific physical priors directly into the f_i functions, such as enforcing odd/even
 103 parity for f_1 , or specifying values like $f_2(1) = 0$.

104 The f_i functions can be strategically defined to match the constitutive relations or CCs of
 105 the system. For instance, in the velocity-dependent friction model (Eq. (2)), f_1 and f_2 are
 106 associated with dissipative (friction) and elastic (stiffness) elements, respectively.

107 Depending on the domain knowledge of the practitioner and the desired level of interpretability,
 108 these 1D functions can be identified using three parametrizations:

- 109 ▪ **Functional** ($\{f_i\}$; $i = 0, 1, \dots$): The 1D functions are treated as unknown functions
 110 and approximated, for instance, using universal approximators such as Neural Networks
 111 (NNs) or Symbolic Regression (SymbR).
- 112 ▪ **Parametric** ($\{a_i\}$; $i = 0, 1, \dots$): The functional form is completely hypothesized and
 113 parameterized using scalar parameters $\{a_i\}$. The library identifies the optimal values for
 114 $\{a_i\}$ through nonlinear optimization.
- 115 ▪ **Hybrid** ($\{f_i\}, \{a_j\}$; $i, j = 0, 1, \dots$): This approach enables practitioners to
 116 simultaneously fit 1D functions $\{f_i\}$ and parameters $\{a_j\}$.

117 Relation to other packages

118 PyCC can be considered as an integrative framework within the scientific machine learning
 119 ecosystem. Its primary differentiator is a hypothesis-driven workflow that shifts the focus from
 120 purely data-driven discovery to a structural 'skeleton' approach, ensuring physical consistency
 121 and structural identifiability. While many packages seek to find the 'best' equation from
 122 scratch, this library provides a formal pipeline to validate if a hypothesized physical structure
 123 is consistent with the measured dynamics.

124 The library is not intended to replace or compete with established packages, but rather to
 125 serve as an interface that uses their strengths (such as the symbolic power of PySR and the
 126 flexibility of NNs) within a structured framework that prioritizes identifiability, interpretability,
 127 and physical consistency.

- 128 ■ **Sparse identification (e.g., SINDy (Brunton et al., 2016)):** This approach is highly
129 effective when the system dynamics can be represented as a sparse combination of
130 terms from a pre-defined library. However, its success is highly dependent on the user
131 correctly guessing the necessary basis functions. If a complex or non-standard term
132 (such as a specific friction model or a saturation curve) is absent, the results may be
133 misleading. While the CC-based formalism can theoretically be implemented via sparse
134 regression, the PyCC library focuses on reconstructing the *shape* of unknown constitutive
135 relations directly. By using, for instance, universal approximators like NNs or SymbR,
136 PyCC captures arbitrary functional forms without requiring a rigid prior library of basis
137 terms.
- 138 ■ **Symbolic regression (e.g., PySR (Cranmer, 2023)):** Standard symbolic regression tools
139 often require searching vast spaces to discover relationships in multivariate data. In
140 contrast, PyCC acts as a manager that internally uses PySR through two specialized
141 workflows:
 - 142 – *Iterative symbolic discovery:* This method decomposes the multivariate problem
143 into a sequence of simpler, 1D symbolic regression that iteratively minimize the
144 residual according to the user-defined skeleton.
 - 145 – *Symbolic post-processing:* The library features an automated post-processing tool
146 to extract analytical expressions from identified CCs (obtained, for instance, via
147 the NN method). This hybrid strategy has demonstrated superior robustness to
148 noise compared to purely NN-based identification (Gonzalez, 2026).
- 149 ■ **Neural ODEs:** Standard implementations (Chen et al., 2018) usually learn entire vector
150 fields using a single, monolithic NN. While powerful for prediction, these “black-box”
151 models offer limited physical insight. PyCC adopts a ‘grey-box’ philosophy by modeling
152 only the specific, unknown constitutive relations within a fixed structural skeleton. This
153 ensures that the learned components (such as damping or restoring elements) retain a
154 clear, isolated physical interpretation regardless of the numerical backend used.
- 155 ■ **Physics-informed neural networks (PINNs):** PINNs (Raissi et al., 2019) excel at solving
156 forward and inverse problems by embedding physical laws into a loss function. However,
157 they are often less suited for discovery when the functional forms of interactions are
158 entirely unknown. PyCC differs by explicitly isolating these unknown terms as distinct
159 functions (f_i) to be learned, making them directly accessible for independent visualization,
160 analysis, and physical validation.

161 Features

162 PyCC is designed to be a user-friendly and highly-customizable tool for researchers and
163 practitioners. Its key features include:

- 164 ■ **Interpretable models:** It allows practitioners to add prior information by decomposing the
165 complex, high-dimensional functional space into a set of simple, one-dimensional CCs
166 that have direct physical meaning (i.e., the CCs are directly the constitutive relations of
167 the system elements, such as, stiffness or damping), and a set of scalar parameters (e.g.,
168 mass).
- 169 ■ **Flexible function parameterization:** Supports multiple back-ends for modeling the 1D
170 functions, allowing practitioners to switch between different representations with minimal
171 modifications:
 - 172 – **Neural Networks (NN):** Implemented using PyTorch (Paszke et al., 2019) and
173 compatible with GPUs and multi-core CPUs. Natively supports both NVIDIA (‘cuda’)
174 and Intel (‘xpu’ via “intel-extension-for-pytorch”) GPUs for training the NNs.
 - 175 – **Polynomials (Poly):** Provides an expansion of the f_i functions using polynomial
176 basis functions.

– **Symbolic regression (SymbR)**: Utilizes the PySR package (Cranmer, 2023) to discover analytical expressions that are compatible with a given prior structure, while also serving as a post-processing tool.

- **Physics-informed discovery**: Allows users to inject domain knowledge as constraints during training (e.g., 'f1 odd', and 'f2(0)=0') or by defining conserved quantities that are added to the loss function. This leads to more robust and physically consistent models.
- **Hardware acceleration**: Natively supports multicore CPUs and GPUs from both NVIDIA ('cuda') and Intel ('xpu' via 'intel-extension-for-pytorch') for training the NNs.
- **Built-in simulator**: Includes a versatile ODE solver (`pycc.simulate`) compatible with all identification methods. This solver facilitates forward integrations of both the identified models and the theoretical equations used to generate training databases.
- **Comprehensive documentation**: Provides a quick-start Google Colab tutorial with an accompanying YouTube video, along with a complete documentation, examples, and recommended workflows.

Core functions and methods

This section briefly describes the three main methods that are defined in the PyCC library: `pycc.simulate()`, `pycc.train()`, and `pycc.post_processing()`.

1. `pycc.simulate()`

This function is responsible for forward system integrations over time. It acts as a simulation manager, dispatching the task to different methods (such as 'Theoretical', 'NN', 'SymbR', 'Poly', or 'Interp'). It has two main uses:

- *Theoretical simulation*: Can be used to integrate forward the theoretical equations in order to obtain ground-truth datasets that will be used for training the models, or to generate theoretical forward integration under different initial conditions or driven forces to compare against model predictions.
- *Validation*: Integrates discovered models after training (e.g., from a NN model) to verify their accuracy against expected dynamics.

2. `pycc.train()`

This function serves as the primary entry point for identifying system dynamics from a given dataset. It operates as a training dispatcher that abstracts the complexity of individual algorithms, automatically routing data to the appropriate module based on the specified "method" parameter (such as 'NN', 'SymbR', 'Poly').

3. `pycc.post_processing()`

This acts as a standalone utility, specifically designed to obtain analytical expressions for the obtained CCs. It converts numerical CCs (previously obtained from methods such as 'NN' or 'Poly') into explicit symbolic expressions. It has two main uses:

- *Model conversion*: Transforms the obtained CCs into symbolic functions for inspection, analysis, and interpretation.
- *Pre-simulation preparation*: Generates optimized symbolic models that are fully compatible with `pycc.simulate()` for subsequent simulations.

Illustrative example: A second-order ODE

To demonstrate the capabilities of PyCC, we consider a classic physical system: a nonlinear oscillator with friction. The governing equation is a second-order differential equation:

$$\ddot{x} + \delta \dot{x} + \mu \tanh(500\dot{x}) + \alpha x + \beta x^3 = F_{ext}(t)$$

221 where $F_{ext}(t) = A \cos(\omega t)$ is an external driving force. The term $\tanh(500\dot{x})$ acts as a smooth
222 approximation of the signum function, $\text{sign}(\dot{x})$, effectively modeling Coulomb friction.

223 To apply the PyCC framework, we rewrite this system as a set of first-order ordinary differential
224 equations (ODEs). By defining the state variables $x_1 = x$ (position) and $x_2 = \dot{x}$ (velocity),
225 the system becomes:

$$\begin{cases} \dot{x}_1 = x_2 \\ \dot{x}_2 = F_{ext}(t) - \delta x_2 - \mu \tanh(500x_2) - \alpha x_1 - \beta x_1^3 \end{cases}$$

226 The system is simulated with defined parameters and initial conditions to generate the dataset
227 $\mathcal{D} = \{x_1, x_2, \dot{x}_1, \dot{x}_2, F_{ext}\}$, which provides the input for system identification. The following
228 code shows how to use the PyCC library to integrate these theoretical equations in order to
229 generate the input dataset that will be used later for training the models:

```
import pycc
import numpy as np
import pandas as pd
import matplotlib.pyplot as plt

#####
# Simulating a stick-slip second order system using
# pycc.simulate(method='Theoretical')
# Defining parameters and theoretical functions
alpha=1.0;beta=0.2;delta=0.1;Omega=1.0;
x0=0.0;v0=0.0; y0=[x0,v0] # initial conditions
t_span=(0, 20); t_eval=np.linspace(*t_span, 1000)
def F1_th(x_dot):
    return delta * x_dot + 0.5 * np.tanh(500*x_dot)
def F2_th(x):
    return alpha * x + beta * x**3
def F_ext(t):
    return np.cos(Omega * t)
# Defining the theoretical equation
eqs_th = ['x1_dot = x2',
          'x2_dot = F_ext - f1(x2) - f2(x1)']
# Defining the simulation parameters
params_th = {
    't_span': t_span,
    'y0': y0,
    't_eval': t_eval,
    'method': 'LSODA',
    'local_funcs': {'f1': lambda t: F1_th(t),
                    'f2': lambda t: F2_th(t), 'F_ext': lambda t: F_ext(t)}
}
# Integrating forward the theoretical equation
sol,derivatives = pycc.simulate(eqs_th,method='Theoretical', params=params_th)
# Extracting data
time_data      = sol.t
x1_data        = sol.y[0]
x2_data        = sol.y[1]
x1_dot_data    = derivatives[0]
```



```
x2_dot_data = derivatives[1]
F_ext_val   = F_ext(time_data)
```

Identification strategies

PyCC supports three distinct identification strategies, categorized by the level of prior knowledge incorporated into the model:

(i) **Functional approach** In this approach, we assume a *structural skeleton* for the physics but leave the specific constitutive relations as unknown functions to be learned from data. The practitioner hypothesizes that the system consists of a velocity-dependent damping force and a position-dependent restoring force:

$$\ddot{x} = F_{ext}(t) - f_1(\dot{x}) - f_2(x) \quad (4)$$

This family of second order systems is called *velocity-dependent friction models with external force* and has structural identifiability properties as discussed in Refs. (Gonzalez, 2026; Gonzalez & Lara, 2025). Translating this to the state-space representation recommended by PyCC:

$$\begin{cases} \dot{x}_1 = x_2 \\ \dot{x}_2 = F_{ext}(t) - f_1(x_2) - f_2(x_1) \end{cases}$$

The goal: Discover the shapes of the CCs $f_1(x_2)$ and $f_2(x_1)$. These functions can be approximated using neural networks (NN), symbolic regression (SymbR), or polynomial expansions (Poly).

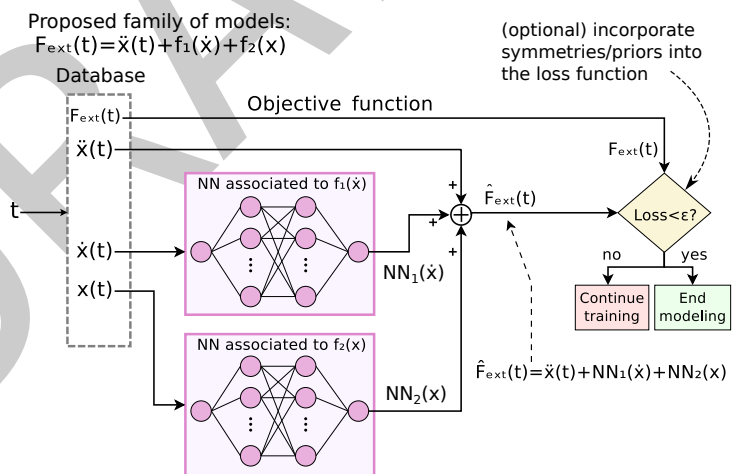


Figure 1: The architecture for a second-order system. Two independent neural networks (NN_1 and NN_2) approximate the unknown CCs. NN_1 sees only velocity, and NN_2 sees only position. Adapted with permissions from Ref. (Gonzalez, 2026).

Figure 1 illustrates the internal architecture automatically generated by PyCC when the method='NN' is specified as input parameter for the provided equations. The following code snippet shows the required implementation workflow for the user.

```
#####
# Defining the database for training
df = pd.DataFrame({
    'x1': x1_data,
    'x2': x2_data,
```

```

        'x1_dot': x1_dot_data,
        'x2_dot': x2_dot_data,
        'F_ext': F_ext_val
    })
    # Defining the proposed equations to use for identification
    eqs = [
        'x1_dot = x2',
        'x2_dot = F_ext - f1(x2) - f2(x1)'
    ]
    # In this example, we use the functional approach
    # with the NN-CC method [pycc.train(method='NN')]
    constraints = [ # adding prior known information
        {'constraint': 'f2(0)=0'},
        {'constraint': 'f1 odd'},
        {'constraint': 'f2 odd'},
    ]
    # defining training parameters (optional)
    params_NN = {
        'neurons': 100,
        'layers': 3,
        'lr': 1e-4,
        'epochs': 2000,
        'error_threshold': 1e-6,
        'extrapolation': None,
        'device': 'cpu',
        'weight_loss_param': 1e-3,
        'constraints': constraints,
    }
    # training the model using NN-CC method
    models, evals, obtained_coefs = pycc.train(df, eqs, method='NN', params=params_NN)
    # plotting obtained functions f1 and f2
    x_f1_cc, f1_cc, x_f2_cc, f2_cc = evals
    fig, ax = plt.subplots(1, 2, figsize=(12, 6))
    ax[0].plot(x_f1_cc, f1_cc, label='$f_1$ learned NN-CC')
    ax[0].plot(x_f1_cc, F1_th(x_f1_cc), '--', label='$f_1$ theory')
    ax[0].set_xlabel('$x_2$')
    ax[0].set_ylabel('$f_1(x_2)$')
    ax[0].legend()
    ax[1].plot(x_f2_cc, f2_cc, label='$f_2$ learned NN-CC')
    ax[1].plot(x_f2_cc, F2_th(x_f2_cc), '--', label='$f_2$ theory')
    ax[1].set_xlabel('$x_1$')
    ax[1].set_ylabel('$f_2(x_1)$')
    ax[1].legend()
    plt.tight_layout()
    plt.show()

    # Print learned parameters (if any)
    if obtained_coefs:
        print('\nLearned scalar parameters:')
        for name, val in obtained_coefs.items():
            print(f'{name} = {val.item():.4f}')

#####
# simulating forward the identified model
# using NN-CC method [pycc.simulate(method='NN')]

```



```

params_NN_simul = {
    'models': models,
    'obtained_coefs': obtained_coefs,
    'local_funcs': {'F_ext': lambda t: F_ext(t)},
    't_span': t_span,
    'y0': y0,
    't_eval': t_eval,
    'method': 'LSODA',
    'atol': 1e-8,
    'rtol': 1e-6,
    'check_nan': True
}

# integrating identified equations
sol,_ = pycc.simulate(eqs, method='NN', params=params_NN_simul)
time_sim=sol.t
x1_sim=sol.y[0]
x2_sim=sol.y[4]
# Plotting identified vs theoretical solution
plt.figure()
plt.plot(time_sim, x1_sim, label='x(t) simulated with NN method')
plt.plot(time_data, x1_data, label='x(t) th')
plt.xlabel('t')
plt.ylabel('x(t)')
plt.legend()
plt.show()

246 Additionally, the following script demonstrates how to use the 'evals' variable to perform a
247 post-processing workflow in which the previously obtained CCs are fitted analytically and then
248 simulated forward using, in this example, a pchip interpolation.

#####
# Post-processing the identified CCs with
# SymbR [pycc.post_processing()].
print('post-SR processing for the CCs')
# Defining settings for the PySR fit
pysr_settings = {
    'niterations': 100,
    'populations': 20,
    'binary_operators': ['+', '*', '-'],
    'unary_operators': ['tanh', 'sin', 'cos'],
    'maxsize': 20
}

# Defining the 'params' dictionary for the post-processing function
post_process_params = {
    'evals': evals,
    'pysr': pysr_settings,
    'plot': True,
    'n_eval': 200,
}

# Running the post-processing
models_sr,evals_sr = pycc.post_processing(eqs, method='SymbR', params=post_process_param

#####
# We can use the post-processed CCs for forward simulation
params_sim_interp = {
    'evals': evals_sr,

```

```

    'obtained_coefs': obtained_coefs,
    'local_funcs': {'F_ext': F_ext},
    'interp_method': 'pchip',
    't_span': t_span,
    'y0': y0,
    't_eval': t_eval,
}
# We simulate the system by interpolating the CCs
sol, derivs = pycc.simulate(eqs, method='Interp', params=params_sim_interp)

```

249 (ii) Parametric Approach

250 In this approach, the practitioner explicitly defines the symbolic structure of the candidate
 251 functions using parameters $\{a_i\}$, which PyCC then optimizes to fit the data:

$$\begin{cases} \dot{x}_1 = x_2 \\ \dot{x}_2 = F_{ext}(t) - a_1 x_2 - a_2 \tanh(a_3 x_2) - a_4 x_1 - a_5 x_1^3 \end{cases}$$

252 **The goal:** Identify the optimal scalar parameters $\{a_i\}$ that minimize the error between the
 253 model and the data.

```

# Defining the proposed equations to use for identification
eqs = [
    'x1_dot = x2',
    'x2_dot = F_ext - a1 x2 - a2 tanh(a3 x2) - a4 x1 - a5 x1^3'
]

```

254 (iii) Hybrid Approach

255 PyCC also supports a hybrid approach that integrates functional discovery with parametric
 256 optimization. For example:

$$\begin{cases} \dot{x}_1 = x_2 \\ \dot{x}_2 = F_{ext}(t) - f_1(x_2) - a_4 x_1 - a_5 x_1^3 \end{cases}$$

```

# Defining the proposed equations to use for identification
eqs = [
    'x1_dot = x2',
    'x2_dot = F_ext - f1(x2) - a4 x1 - a5 x1^3'
]

```

257 PyCC reserves the names f_i and a_i to represent functions and scalar parameters, respectively.

258 Using other methods

259 Alternative methods to NN such as Poly and SymbR can be used with only minor code changes.
 260 For instance, the following code shows the implementation of the SymbR method:

```

params_SymbR = {
    'pysr': {
        'niterations': 100,
        'unary_operators': ['sin', 'cos', 'tanh'],
        'binary_operators': ['+', '-', '*'],
        'maxsize': 12,
        'populations': 10,
        'model_selection': 'accuracy',
    }
}

```

```

        'verbosity': 0
    },
    'N_fit_points': 200,
    'max_iterations': 25,
}
models, evals, obtained_coefs = pycc.train(
    df=df,
    equations=equations,
    method='SymbR',
    params=params_SymbR
)

sol,_ = pycc.simulate(equations, method='SymbR', params=params_SR_simul)

```

Declaration of competing interest

The authors declare that they have no known competing financial interests or personal relationships that could have appeared to influence the work reported in this paper.

Data availability

The software package is available at: <https://github.com/FedejGon/pyCC.id>

AI usage disclose

The core structure of the source code was authored manually. AI tools were subsequently employed during the development phase to assist with code refactoring and the generation of comments in the code. All AI-assisted components were rigorously reviewed, tested, and validated by the author to ensure functional integrity.

Additionally, AI tools were utilized during the drafting process of this manuscript to provide feedback on clarity and wording. All AI-generated suggestions were subject to critical revision and final approval by the author.

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